The Contemporary World

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General Education

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MODULE 5
THE GLOBAL NORTH AND SOUTH DIVIDE

Introduction

Since the process of globalization is uneven, it follows that there is an imbalance in the socio-economic and political categories of the world. The world is divided into north and south, and first, second, and third.

Overseas Filipino workers (OFWs) in Europe, Australia, and America tend to see the big difference between the ways of living in the Philippines and in Western countries. Some of them come home as “one-day millionaires” giving out presents to their family, relatives, neighbors, and friends. Although their incomes are relatively higher than if they work in the Philippines, they realize that life is still tough despite the remittances they send to their families and the taxes that the country gains from these. Furthermore, they cannot escape the reality that their occasional vacations in the Philippines are temporary because they would need to go back to work in order to continue making a living in another country. This is a reflection of the global divide between the north and the south as experienced by these Filipinos.

Learning Outcomes

At the end of this module, students should be able to:

1. Define the term “Global South”.
2. Differentiate the Global South from the Third World; and
3. Analyze how a new conception of global relations emerged from the experiences of Latin American countries

Lesson 1. The Global North and the Global South

The term Global South is a metaphor for interstate inequality and a product of Western imagination (Claudio, 2014), Historically, there had been divisions and labeling among the different nations of the world.

Countries that were colonized by the Spaniards in the southern part of the American continent are collectively called Latin America. By virtue of the Treaty of Tordesillas in 1494, the newly discovered lands outside Europe were divided into two—the West belonging to the Crown of Castile (now part of Spain) and the East belonging to the Portuguese Empire.

There is also a split based on labor—the core, the semi-periphery, and the peripheries. From these divisions, the Global South refers to the socio-economic and political divide primarily focused on the southern hemisphere of the 1569-designed Mercatorian map. It consists of Africa, Latin America, and Asia including the Middle East. These nation-states are deemed to be not aligned with nation-states located in the northern hemisphere that adhere to fair labor practices, rights, free trade, reduced tariffs, and policies on sustainable development. The Global South also connotes developing countries as opposed to rich, industrialized, and wealthy nations.

On the contrary, the Global North is the home of all members of the Group of Eight (G8)—Canada, France, Germany, Italy, Japan, United Kingdom, Russia, and the United States of America. It is also the abode of the four powerful permanent members of the United Nations Security Council. It also refers to the developed countries in Asia, Australia, and New Zealand. As stated by Claudio (2014), the Global South "continues to be imagined and re-imagined by those who dominate it even as movements from below reshape these constructions through resistance."

Although usually associated with developing nations, the Global South is also found in developed countries. Economically poor families, underprivileged individuals unfair labor practices, and suppression of human rights, and other violations of basic rights in Europe, Australia, US, and Canada are the pieces of evidence that people from developed countries also share similar experiences with people from developing countries. Conversely, a trip to the cosmopolitan metropolis of Metro Manila by someone from Tupi, South Cotabato—denoting high standard of living, availability of better transport system, prevalence of banking and financial

institutions, presence of big commercial establishments, and centrality of the national government—is that person's experience of the "Global North." The Global North, therefore, is also relatively experienced within the geographical boundaries of the Global South.

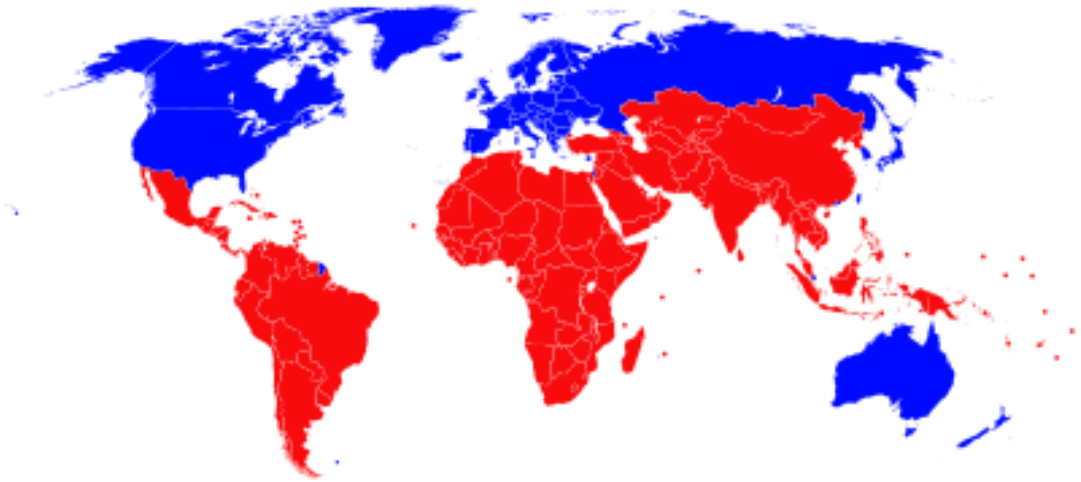

Figure 5.1. The Global North and South as depicted by the Brandt line.

Source: Tait (2016), retrieved from https://intranet.kes.hants.sch.uk/resource.aspx?id=145038

By now, one can say that the terms Global South and Third World are conceptually the same. They both refer to conditions usually found in developing countries. But the term Third World is the antecedent of Global South (Claudio, 2014). Arguably, the term Third World ceased to exist when the Cold War ended. Historically, the world was once categorized based on the economic ideology of Western capitalism against the Soviet Union's socialism. As formal economies, capitalism sustains consumer choice, private property, and economic freedom when socialism is characterized by state control of the means of production, distribution, and exchange.

Capitalist economies were considered First World and socialist economies were referred to as Second World. Those that did not belong to either types of formal economies belong to the Third World. The term Third World was initially used to refer to the former colonies of European countries. To illustrate, India was considered a Third World country for it was a colony of the United Kingdom. According to this categorization, the Philippines was classified as Third World. Later, the category was used to refer to countries that were neither capitalist nor socialist. Since

many countries were impoverished, the term was also used to refer to the poor world. These countries were considered to be non-industrialized and newly industrialized. They lacked the standard systems in banking, finance, and trade.

Table 5.1. Characteristics of Brandt Line

Table 1: Characteristics of the Brandt Line

Characteristics of the North	Characteristics of the South
1/4 of the world's people	3/4 of the world's people
4/5 of world's income	1/5 of world's income
Average life expectancy more than 70 years	Average life expectancy of 50 years
Most people have enough to eat	1/5 or more suffer from hunger and malnutrition
Most people are educated	1/2 of the people have little chance of any education
Over 90% of the world's manufacturing industry	less than 10% of the world's manufacturing industry
About 96% of the world's spending on research and development	4% of the world's research and development

Source: Tait (2016), retrieved from https://intranet.kes.hants.sch.uk/resource.aspx?id=145038

As Table 1 demonstrates, Brandt suggested that countries north of the division were more developed as they had been able to interact successfully with others, benefitting from higher levels of trade and thus boosting the quality of life for their population. However, global economic welfare has changed greatly over the last 30 years; urging today's leaders to question the relevance of Brandt's North-South division (Tait, 2016).

Hence, it is outdated to say that countries in Southeast Asia belong to me Third World for the term has ended its usage after the Cold War. These countries may be classified as the Global South though some of their citizens experience the Global North within their territories.

Lesson 2. Youth Studies for the Global South (Cooper et al., 2018)

Youth Studies' theories often assume universal generalizability. Youth Studies 'for' the global South, questioning whether theories/approaches that center on the global North can be usefully applied in the global South, how and for what purpose. Cooper et al. (2018) explicated the geo-politically situated nature of knowledge production. How theories that originate elsewhere can be adapted and put to work in new contexts.

Youth Studies for the global South needs to demonstrate its relevance beyond applying theories to new local sites. It should be able to say something more general about the human condition.

2.1 Applying similar Youth Studies amid regional differences

Broad and imperfectly demarcated regional differences do exist in terms of poverty levels, violence, educational attainment and the proportion of youth in relation to the rest of the population, although trends are changing rapidly (Punch, 2016 as cited by Cooper et al., 2018). Differences are partly due to many- if not most- of the territories of Africa, Latin America and Southern Asia being previously colonized by European powers.

The effects of colonization continue in the present. Although income poverty in the global South is not completely a result of colonization, the extraction of precious resources certainly contributes to contemporary differences in wealth.

Theory 'for' the South draws on Burawoy's (2010 as cited by Cooper et al., 2018) distinction between Sociology, or in this case Youth Studies, 'in', 'of' and 'for' the global South. Youth Studies 'in' the South is Northern theory transplanted into Southern contexts, with its universal relevance unquestioned. Youth Studies 'of' the South shows how the use of theory in a different local context changes its meaning. What may be conservative or true in one place may be radical or false in another. Sociology 'for' the South is not content with showing local particularities, but moves towards universality in its theorizing. It considers theory in relation to local ontologies, values and politics and tries to say something more general about the human condition, something that applies to us all.

2.2 Northern Theory in Understanding the Southern Youth (Cooper et al., 2018)

Cooper et.al (2018) outlined two mainstream Youth Studies' domains of theory and research, showing how they are both useful but insufficient for conceptualizing Southern Youth. They call these the Socio-Cultural (their term) and Dynamic Systems (an existing term) approaches. They used these domains to describe a Youth Studies 'of' the South, explicating some of the options available to us in using theory from elsewhere in the work that we do, what these ideas mean in our context, and how they are useful and also inadequate.

1. *The socio-cultural approach to youth studies*

Sociological and cultural Studies approaches to studying youth generate links between culture, social structure and the ways that young people make meaning out of, and react to, their socio-historical contexts. This research tradition highlights the effects of social conditions on young people and documents individual biographies in relation to macro societal forces (Cohen and Ainley, 2000 as cited by Cooper et al., 2018). Socio-cultural theorists emphasize local contexts and youth agency in relation to powerful structural forces, providing youth with opportunities to voice challenges they face in their own words.

Can this approach be relevant to Southern Youth?

This tradition admirably resists negative stereotypes of young people. Youth in the global South are often perceived in 'deficit' terms, associated with poverty, criminality and dependency, representations that lead to repressive policy decisions. These studies warned against scapegoating and reproducing negative stereotypes, an important lesson for people studying and working with Southern youth.

In Southern contexts, moral panics frequently involve youth, obfuscating societal problems and unfairly pinpointing youth as the cause of social troubles. In South Africa, for example, the 'crime problem', which is largely attributed to young black men, functions to divert attention away from the lack of material and economic transformation in the post-apartheid period (Cooper and Foster 2008; Samara 2011 as cited by Cooper et al., 2018).

Socio-cultural approaches to identity formation may also be useful to theorizing challenges Southern youth face. The solutions that working-class British youths generated, in the form of sub-cultures, involved a 'double-articulation', positioning themselves in relation to their parent culture (working-class) and then vis-a-vis the dominant middle and upper-classes.

Cultural identity formation for many Southern Youth also involves multiple articulations vis-à-vis the global center, the culture of their parents and national cultural forces. For Southern youth, identity construction means making sense of global icons, cultural symbols, technologies, brands and ways of life by re-contextualizing these from places on the periphery, by mixing local practices and objects.

Socio-cultural approaches value to Youth Studies extends beyond unfair labels and identity negotiation. 'Sub-culture' illuminates social struggles in particular socio-historical contexts. Working-class solidarity showed how 'subcultures' explained the ideological contradiction facing British youth. However:

> "There is no 'subcultural solution' to working-class youth unemployment, educational disadvantage, compulsory miseducation, dead-end jobs, the routinization and specialization of labor, low pay and the loss of skills. Sub-cultural strategies cannot match, meet or answer the structuring dimensions. They 'solve', but in an imaginary way, problems"

Sub-culture offered youth expressive outlets and solidarity as class structures changed in the 1960s. However, in places with urgent material problems of unemployment and poverty, we have concerns about the relevance of theory that deals predominantly with the symbolic realm.

In the global South, resistance is not only ritualistic' (see Clarke et al. 1975), it relates to survival. It could be argued that parts of the global North are beginning to experience higher levels of unemployment, but these are still far lower than countries in the global

South (International Labour Organisation, 2013 as cited by Cooper et al., 2018), and have results nowhere near the 2USD a day figures of the global South.

How relevant are socio-cultural approaches to the study of Southern youth?

They reveal that healthy youth development is tied to young people's need to be 'agents' in their stories and successes. This tradition alerts people to negative portrayals of youth usually saying more about the portrayers than the portrayed, in the process illuminating elements of the socio-political contexts in which youth live.

2. *Dynamic systems, risks and protective factors*

The domain of Dynamic Systems predominantly emanates from American Psychology departments and looks for solutions to material problems, often devising interventions to ameliorate the challenges youth face. Dynamic Systems is more closely (although not only) aligned with a positivist research paradigm that measures youth development constructs.

Dynamic Systems scholars now view developmental change as located in systemic relations between individuals and environments. Environments, from this perspective, are perceived as systems like parent–child interactions and community relations, which impact on one another. Systems models are able to move beyond youth as individual cognitions, emotions and motivations, generating theoretical possibilities for change across the life-span. Two examples of the Dynamic Systems approach are (a) Bronfenbrenner's (1979) Ecological Model of human development and the (b) Positive Youth Development framework (PYD).

These theories examine the multiple risk and protective factors that emerge in young people's interactions in/with different contexts. Risk factors increase the likelihood of undesirable outcomes. Protective factors are individual or environmental safeguards that protect people.

a. Bronfenbrenner's (1979) Ecological Model of human development

Youth development, from an ecological perspective, is the interaction of multiple risk and protective factors – nested within one another like a set of Russian dolls – as they play out within and between the young person and different environments. However, the Ecological Model overlooks what risk-taking might mean in Southern contexts.

Many Southern youth need to hustle, improvise, navigate, capitalize on opportunities when they arise and know when to, and the importance of, taking risks. For them risk-taking is often a beneficial skill that is developed, not necessarily a sign of delinquency and pathology.

Risk and protection require interpretation in historical, political and economic contexts. For example, leaving school early to obtain temporary employment could mitigate the risk of poverty or restrict opportunities for social mobility, functioning as both a risk and/or a protective factor. Employment may be a protective factor, but if it is only short-term and unfulfilling it could risk leading to frustration and rage. Understanding risk and protection requires a careful analysis of youths' intentions and their contexts.

b. Positive Youth Development framework

The other Dynamic Systems example is the Positive Youth Development framework, which portrays youth in positive terms as assets and resources. PYD promotes programs and environments that focus on the '5 Cs': competence, confidence, character, connection, and caring.

However, this framework assumes a degree of 'Northern normalcy' that is far-removed from many of the 'abnormally normal' Southern conditions like war-torn environments, slums, or places that have been hit by natural disasters of flood, fire and drought.

On a global level, knowledge production is heavily weighted in favor of Western Europe and North America (WENA). This is not a conspiracy by Northern scholars, but reflects material inequalities, the position of powerful institutions like Northern universities and broader global flows of cultural influence (Côté, 2014 as cited by Cooper et al., 2018). This phenomenon is not

restricted to Youth Studies, as academic fields/disciplines globally are shaped by WENA scholars and institutions, their journals, conferences and epistemological genealogies.

The ways in which knowledge is created and disseminated through contemporary geopolitical circuits means that theories and ideas that originate in specific local contexts, mainly WENA, are sometimes assumed to be universally applicable before they have been extensively explored in other places.

One way to advance a Youth Studies for the global South project is to include Southern scholars in collaborative projects and some interesting compilations have recently emerged, adding immense value to the field. However, Cooper et.al (2018) believed that in addition to collaborative efforts it would be useful for Southern scholars, in different contexts, to assert their own agendas and knowledges' and develop their theories, on their own terms, pinpointing the different concerns of youth and researchers on the global periphery. They believed that South-South networks can bolster a Youth Studies for the global South by starting with concepts and agendas of local concern, rather than beginning in the North and working outwards to demonstrate global commonalities.

Lesson 3. Strategies for disentangling, democratizing and mainstreaming youth studies scholarship for the Global South

(Cooper et al., 2018)

A first step towards Youth Studies for the global South means disentangling the lived realities of Southern youth and reinterpreting theory in the light of these conditions. This should be accompanied by strengthening existing global collaborations, creating new South-South alliances and mainstreaming Southern scholarship.

3.1 Disentangling the local and global, the universal and particular

Disentangling the local and global, the universal and particular means critiquing theory that is assumed to be universally relevant, showing how it can be usefully put to work in new, as yet unconsidered contexts and where it requires revision.

Constitutive characteristics of Southern Youth's lives need to be identified and interpreted through contextually relevant theoretical lenses. Disentangling epistemic trajectories requires that Southern scholars challenge their Northern counterparts at conferences and in publications, showing where 'global assumptions' are unjustifiably made.

3.2 Democratizing through cooperation and new alliances

Many of the issues facing youth and academics are global in their genesis and reach, meaning that alliances are needed. This process has begun and it urgently needs to be strengthened and supported. However, as mentioned, new South-South alliances or subaltern counter publics need to be forged. A joint strategy of cooperation and strategic alliances is therefore needed.

3.3 Decentering Northern scholarship

Since the beginning of the colonial era, many Southern youth have been forced to contend with competition for scarce resources, insecure living conditions, the presence of people born

elsewhere and forms of systemic violence. Young people in these regions have developed expert knowledges of how to cope with and in adversity, as they hustle to survive and adapt to circumstances of rapid change.

Deliberate mainstreaming of Southern scholarship therefore means decentering WENA as the theoretical hegemon, elucidating the potential of Southern scholarship for youth globally. Southern scholarship means challenging how and what we identify as knowledge, contesting which ideas are worth sharing and advocating for a wider range of experiences as constitutive of the human condition.

Lesson 4. Perspectives from the Global South (Cooper et al., 2018)

Youth are variously described as 'at risk', as victims of precarious and unpredictable circumstances, or as agents of social change who embody the future. From this future-oriented generational perspective, youth are often mobilized to individually and collectively imagine, enact and embody Utopian futures as alternatives to reigning orders that molded their subjectivities but simultaneously fail them. This lesson looks at how divergent Utopias inspire strategies, whereby young people come together in transient communities to 'catch' a fleeting future, cultivate alternative subjectivities and thus assume a sense of minimum control over their life trajectories, if only momentarily.

4.1 The Youth in the Global South

Over the past decades, the proportion of the world's youth population has grown steadily, accounting for 1.8 billion by the end of 2014, according to UN statistics which define youth as the age cohort between 15 and 24 (but see UNESCO's definition of youth 'as a period of transition from the dependence of childhood to adulthood's independence').

If we would tentatively accept the age cohort definition, 89% of youth live in the Global South where difficulties of providing the new generations with secure livelihoods are undermining their paths to adulthood. As many as 40% of the 7 billion global population are negatively affected by inadequate, adverse or precarious living conditions.

Scholars have since then pointed out that the youth period differs widely between societies and even within the same social groupings. Youth has been studied as intersecting with other categories like class (Willis 1977 as cited by Cooper et al., 2018), race (Bucholtz 1999 as cited by Cooper et al., 2018) and gender.

The impact of globalization on youth cultures has more recently been explored as connected with the ways in which broader categorizations become fluid in an era of flexible citizenship. Definition of youth as a period of transition, then we might notice its implicit liberal assumptions about adulthood as characterized by 'independence', which is often a code word for political and economic agency, structurally embedded in and predicated on property, wage labor,

citizenship and reproductive kin relations. Youth in the Global South not as a uniform category, but as subjectivities in the making.

The point to note here is the liminal image of youth as (physically, mentally) 'no longer child' but (politically, economically, kinship-wise) 'not yet adult', which makes it a disjunctive category with regard to societal structures and expectations.

Young people have been disproportionately affected by structural adjustment, austerity policies and the financial crisis in past decades as well as by intensified political turmoil, leading to a marked escalation in youth movements, and youth participation in movements across the globe.

There is no Global North without a Global South – and hence as historically connected. Unlike in the Global North, where youth problems have been spatially and socially confined and primarily studied in terms of subcultures (Hebdige 1979 as cited by Cooper et al., 2018), youth movements in the Global South have been differently disruptive (Richards 1996; Paul 2005 as cited by Cooper et al., 2018) , often spearheading violent anti-systemic politics.

4.2 Youth and Utopia (Cooper et al., 2018)

While studies of youth in the Global North tend to focus on the notion of risk and on the emergence of particular sub-cultures, studies of youth in the Global South have focused on how young people navigate an uncertain terrain in their quests to obtain adulthood and social standing.

Global South take part in shaping futures as they gather in religious, political or cultural movements and seek to challenge the status quo in a simultaneous quest for and enactment of new Utopias. Karl Mannheim in the 1920s:

> 'Utopias […] transcend the social situation, for they too orient conduct towards elements which the situation, in so far as it is realized at the time, does not contain.'

In state discourses around the world, youth–as a social category between childhood and adulthood–are often described as being either 'a risk' or 'at risk', a potentially dangerous 'threat'

to be subjected to education, discipline and social control, or alternatively as victims of precarious and unpredictable circumstances.

Youth tend to be seen as agents of social change, as they embody the future of the nation and hence a category of people that the state and nation need to invest in, thus raising the stakes of this 'at risk category' of youth.

Mannheim (1954, 176 as cited by Cooper et al., 2018) argued that Utopias 'are not ideologies in the measure and in so far as they succeed through counteractivity in transforming the existing historical reality in accord with their own conceptions'. To the extent that Utopia is precisely not 'existing historical reality', it has the potential to stir people – especially young people – into action with a view to realizing it. This enactment of a Utopian future simultaneously involves an embodiment of values that are potentially at odds with prevailing values in society, and thus often materialize a distancing from the ways of acting and thinking to which they had been exposed as children. That is to say, the youth under study here are cultivating subjectivities that are different from the subjectivities they had formed during their childhood.

4.2 Ethnographic perspectives from the Global South (Cooper et al., 2018)

Hirslund shows how against the backdrop of competing visions of the post-war transition across the political landscape, youth has emerged as a frequent trope for concretizing political change at the same time as it relocates the struggle of politics onto the individual subjectivity of young, aspiring activists.

Arab Spring that – albeit briefly – promised better, freer and more democratic futures for a number of North African and Middle East countries. Few of these promises materialized, and in Libya, Egypt and Syria Utopian politics quickly morphed into dystopian realities marked by civil war and political oppression. Before the Tahrir moment, their project was at once political and non-political: it was political, because it envisaged a better nation as a corollary of embodied and enacted piety and compassion, and it was non-political because it was not directed at the state in any way.

Another religiously inspired Utopia – of Christianity in and out of China – is proposed by Susanne Bregnbæk in 'In search of the heart of a heartless world: Chinese youth, house-church Christianity and the longing for foreign Utopias'. Bregnbæk offers close-up ethnographic portraits of young Chinese Christians in Beijing and sometimes overseas. She argues that conversion to Christianity is connected with a desire for a life away from the competition and materialism that her interlocutors associated with Communist-but-post socialist China. The article illuminates how this experience of persistent marginality spurs a prospective positioning of the self, as aspiring migrants construct visions of future scenarios where positive personhood can be gained and subjectivity anchored; that is, futures that afford social being and moral worth.

Maritza Bode Bakker and Monique Nuijten describe a situation where young adults in Quito (Ecuador) build a Utopian subculture by adopting a 'lifestyle of difference' from what they perceive and experience as conservative and discriminatory values in mainstream society, including their gendered family expectations. In other words, rather than temporally projecting a Utopian vision into a distant future or spatially imagining Utopia as elsewhere, these b-boys and b-girls create, enact and embody a Utopian counterculture that is socially distinct from everyday life in the neighborhood.

Arteaga describe the fraught efforts by poor youth in a poor urban neighborhood of Santiago de Chile to enact a vision of Utopian life in the intimate sphere, informed by middle-class notions of the good life. In theorizing intimacy as Utopian, Risør and Arteaga draw on Berlant's (2011) understanding of intimacy as a normative, yet Utopian, affective promise that allows for imagining possibilities of a good life. In addition, this normative class-inflected promise is clearly connected with practices of belonging and citizenship in the post-Pinochet, neoliberalized Chilean polity and economy. Risør and Arteaga argue that this sense of belonging is disjunctive, meaning that they do not match state and middle-class expectations of proper citizenship even if they inhabit the nation state.

4.3 Youth and Utopia in the Global South (Cooper et al., 2018)

The six contributions in this chapter of Identities shed new light on debates of gender, class, ethnicity and citizenship by proposing youth as a generational, age set and social category

on its own – not apart from, but intersected and inflected by these other dimensions. What makes the category of youth a fertile site of studying processes of social change, resistance and subjectivity is this temporal quality: having come out of childhood with its notions of dependency, youth have not yet settled socially and do not yet quite belong to society, but for that very reason is forward-looking rather than backward-looking, as elder generations are wont to do.

Temporally speaking, youth have little to look back to, and live their lives in the present oriented by the futurities. Future orientation, youth often seek to enact the Utopian vision that they envision through embodiment and by cultivating the subjectivities they desire to become. Utopia is envisioned in contradistinction with a present which often does not meet the expectations of many young adults.

Youth in the Global South are exposed to Utopian visions – either home-grown or from 'elsewhere' – that contrast markedly with their everyday experience in growing up and claiming a place in society.

One could argue that the distinction between Global South and Global North is becoming obsolete, but the life experiences of youth from Nepal, Egypt, China, Bissau, Ecuador and Chile as described in this chapter are often painful and harrowing. The historical conditions in which these youths find themselves propel them to imagine a different, better life which – given the vast distance between their life worlds and their hopes for the future – often acquires Utopian qualities, as brought out in the articles. However, these very conditions hold them back when seeking to enact these Utopian futures – even if they move great distances to escape these conditions, as pointed out in the contributions by Vigh on Bissauan militia and by Bregnbæk on Chinese Christians.

The temporal and social in-between-ness of youth creates a tension between what is and what is desired. In the resulting gap, youth seek to cultivate their genealogically 'inherited' subjectivities in order to match, embody and enact their Utopias. It is this very instability and fluidity, which make youth a category whose dreams and actions allow us a peek into an as yet unrealized future – a category of potential, possibility and hope.

As youth emerge as political actors onto the world stage, they are confronted with their own historically informed subjectivities as well as with societal expectations that shape the ways

in which their highly diverse quests for new Utopias are played out, and which all too often turn into disappointing new realities or even dystopian nightmares. The contributions to this chapter show that youth are important social and political actors in movements of all stripes in the Global South, and that their motivation stems from oftentimes Utopian visions and expectations of a better future for themselves.

Summary

- A first step towards Youth Studies for the global South means disentangling the lived realities of Southern youth and reinterpreting theory in the light of these conditions. This should be accompanied by strengthening existing global collaborations, creating new South-South alliances and mainstreaming Southern scholarship.
- Over the past decades, the proportion of the world's youth population has grown steadily. Scholars have since then pointed out that the youth period differs widely between societies and even within the same social groupings. The impact of globalization on youth cultures has more recently been explored as connected with the ways in which broader categorizations become fluid in an era of flexible citizenship. There is no Global North without a Global South – and hence as historically connected.
- While studies of youth in the Global North tend to focus on the notion of risk and on the emergence of particular sub-cultures, studies of youth in the Global South have focused on how young people navigate an uncertain terrain in their quests to obtain adulthood and social standing.
- The six contributions in this chapter of Identities shed new light on debates of gender, class, ethnicity and citizenship by proposing youth as a generational, age set and social category on its own – not apart from, but intersected and inflected by these other dimensions.
- One could argue that the distinction between Global South and Global North is becoming obsolete, but the historical conditions in which these youths find themselves propel them to imagine a different, better life. As youth emerge as political actors onto the world stage, they are confronted with their own historically informed subjectivities as well as with societal expectations that shape the ways in which their highly diverse quests.
- The contributions to this chapter show that youth are important social and political actors in movements of all stripes in the Global South, and that their motivation stems from oftentimes Utopian visions and expectations of a better future for themselves.

- Since the process of globalization is uneven, it follows that there is an imbalance in the socio-economic and political categories of the world. The world is divided into north and south, and first, second, and third. This is a reflection of the global divide between the north and the south as experienced by these Filipinos.
- The term Global South is a metaphor for interstate inequality and a product of Western imagination. On the contrary, the Global North is the home of all members of the Group of Eight. Although usually associated with developing nations, the Global South is also found in developed countries. Hence, it is outdated to say that countries in Southeast Asia belong to me Third World for the term has ended its usage after the Cold War. These countries may be classified as the Global South though some of their citizens experience the Global North within their territories.
- Youth Studies' theories often assume universal generalizability. Broad and imperfectly demarcated regional differences do exist in terms of poverty levels, violence, educational attainment and the proportion of youth in relation to the rest of the population, although trends are changing rapidly.
- Cooper et.al (2018) outlined two mainstream Youth Studies' domains of theory and research, showing how they are both useful but insufficient for conceptualizing Southern Youth. They call these the Socio-Cultural (their term) and Dynamic Systems (an existing term) approaches.
- The socio-cultural approach to youth studies highlights the effects of social conditions on young people and documents individual biographies in relation to macro societal forces. The dynamic systems view developmental change as located in systemic relations between individuals and environments. Two examples of the dynamic systems are Bronfenbrenner's (1979) Ecological Model of human development and the Positive Youth Development framework (PYD).

Assessment Task 5-1

DIRECTIONS: Search for a newspaper or magazine caricature that illustrates your answer to the question, “Are the Global North and Global South dependent on one another?” Cut, take a photo, or print the selected caricature then paste it below. Write a short (3-5 sentences only) explanation about it.

Your work will be evaluated using this rubric: (20 points)

Selection of Caricature/Newspaper clipping – 8 points
Content – 5 points
Understanding and Application – 4 points
Technicality and Grammar – 3 points

Assessment Task 5-2

INSTRUCTIONS. Choose a city or town in the Philippines where you can observe or experience the Global North and the Global South. List down the specific scenarios of the youth experiences in these cities.

GLOBAL NORTH _____	GLOBAL SOUTH _____

References

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MODULE 6
INTEGRATION OF THE ASIAN REGION

Introduction

Asian economic integration has intensified over the years. Understanding the diversity of Asia and the capacity constraints of countries in the region to manage integration, building an integrated Asian market is difficult. It requires not only the ability to implement initiatives to support the markets, but also a high level commitment by countries to ensure that policies are supportive of integration. Because regional economic integration is a complex process, there is a need to understand how the process works so that policy makers are better informed of its outcomes and to guide them in formulating integration-related policies. Hence, monitoring regional economic integration becomes crucial. Asia is on the rise with increasing significance in the global economy. In parallel, regional cooperation and integration is becoming stronger, bringing both benefits and costs. The region is diverse, and so are the challenges that must be overcome to achieve greater trade and financial integration.

Learning Outcomes

At the end of the module, students should be able to:

1. Differentiate between regionalization and globalization
2. Identify the factors leading to a greater integration of the Asian region
3. Analyze how different Asian states confront the challenges of globalization and regionalization

Lesson 1. Monitoring Regional Economic Integration in Asia

Regional economic integration is a process in which two or more countries agree to eliminate economic barriers, with the end goal of enhancing productivity and achieving greater economic interdependence. It can take different forms, from the simplest preferential trade area to the most advanced monetary or fiscal union. In Asia, integration has intensified since the 1990s as countries recognized the need to harness domestic sources of growth, as is evident from the various indicators of integration such as trade flows, foreign direct investment, tourism, financial links, and output correlation (Figure 1). A number of factors contributed to this growth in regionalism, including the rapid expansion of Asian markets and existence of various mechanisms for cooperation. The most well-known model of integration in Asia is the Association of Southeast Asian Nations (ASEAN) Economic Community (AEC), which was formally established in 2015. Asia's integration is basically market driven (influenced by policies), multispeed (different levels of integration) and multitracked (varies across sectors; ADB [2012]). To facilitate integration, policy frameworks have been established through various regional mechanisms and bodies (e.g., ASEAN and Asia-Pacific Economic Cooperation) and have resulted in varying integration results across sectors and subregions. Asia's trade openness is also above the global level, trade creating, and intense like in other markets (Figure 2) (Tait, 2016).

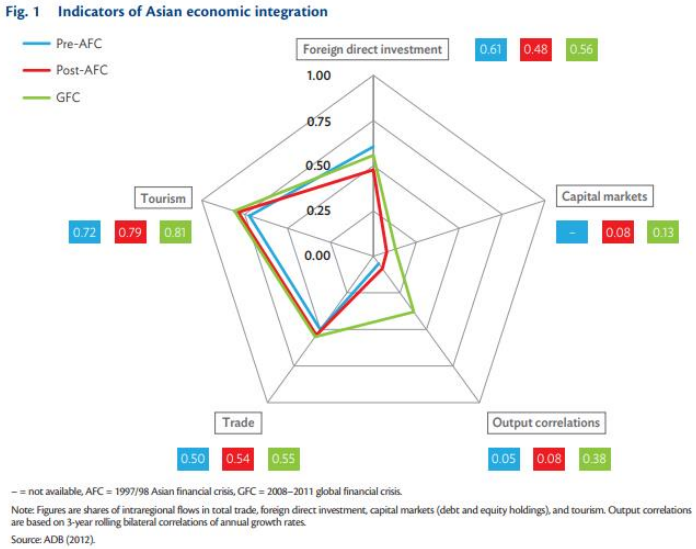

Figure 5.2. Indicators of Asian Economic Integration

Source from: Tait (2016), retrieved from https://intranet.kes.hants.sch.uk/resource.aspx?id=145038

However, due to Asia's diversity, overall integration is still uneven. Across subregions, East Asia is the most integrated due to its extensive regional production networks

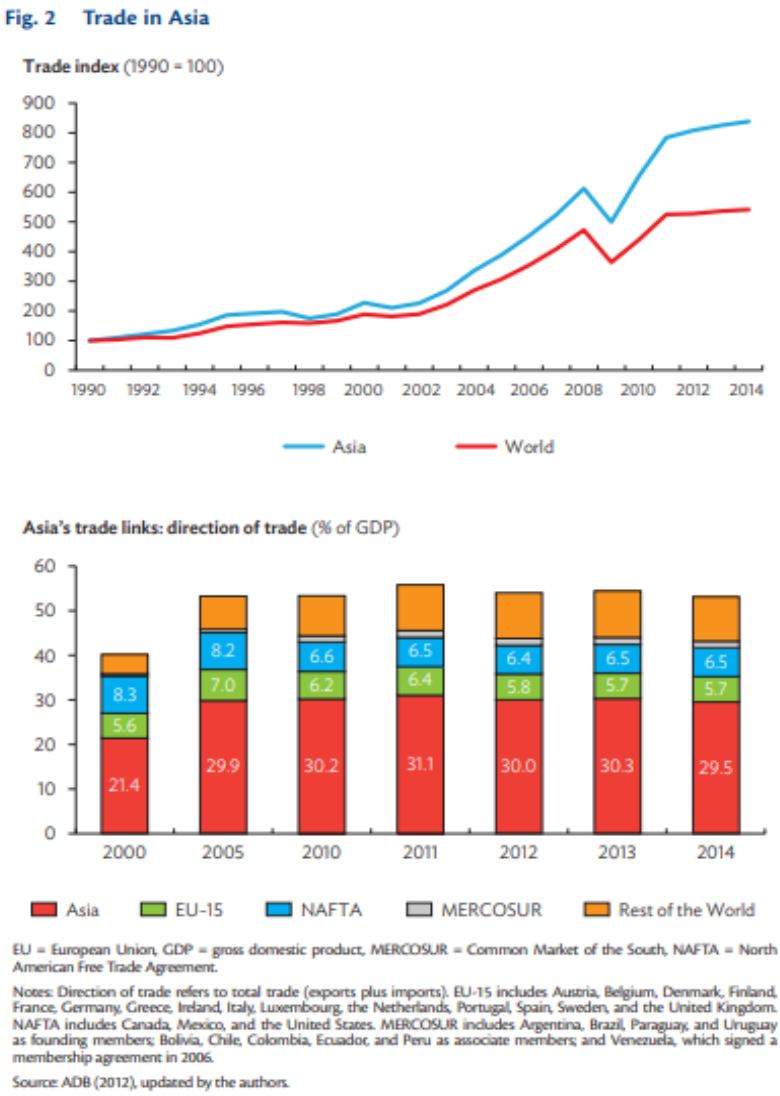

Figure 5.3 Trade in Asia

Source from: ADB, 2017

One important characteristic of Asian integration is the rise of regional production networks and growing trade in intermediate goods. As production activities are fragmented into different tasks, the demand for primary and intermediate goods also rises—and Asian countries have been able to capitalize well on that, as exemplified best by the People's Republic of China's soaring trade in the region. By the end of 2014, intermediate exports accounted for 50% of total exports in Asia and also contributed most to export growth (Tait, 2016).

Similarly, over the years, Asia has managed to build economic corridors that play a vital role in this market integration. Economic corridors (such as the Greater Mekong Subregion) not only connect the markets, but also facilitate the movement of goods, services, and people across borders. They also open new opportunities for industrialization as domestic firms take advantage of technical know-how from their trading partners to produce their own manufactured goods.

Meanwhile, Asia's deepening integration is also reflected in the growing number of regional trade agreements, the region's increased ability to invest in global manufacturing industries, and increasing links with global capital and financial markets over the years (Tait, 2016).

Monitoring Progress of Integration is Still Limited

Despite the growing forces of regionalism in Asia, understanding the full impact of integration appears limited because of the lack of a systematic approach to measure its progress. This is unfortunate because integration has now become an important policy tool in many Asian countries. It is also perceived as generating significant macroeconomic benefits to the domestic economy through its links to trade, investment, and economic growth. However, the limited knowledge of integration outcomes fails to advance the real merits of integration. Thus, monitoring integration is needed not only to understand the integration process but also to influence the development outcomes of integration and to increase the capacity of policy makers to implement better integration policies to sustain the process (De Lombaerde, Pietrangeli & Weeratunge. 2008).

In terms of compliance, one approach is to measure the implementation of various integration measures by tracking how countries comply with their commitments. The other approach is intended to benchmark outcomes and impacts of implementation, improve the quality of decision making, and make the integration process more sustainable by identifying problems (information gathering) and assessing changes required (information analysis) (Tait, 2016).

Lesson 2. Regional Economic Integration and Human Development (De Lombaerde et al., 2008)

The process of regional economic integration can have significant effects on human development. The term 'integration' signals a process that is considerably broader than simply eliminating barriers to trade in goods and services between countries. Integration can also encompass harmonizing standards and regulatory frameworks; reducing restrictions on financial capital and labour mobility; adopting common approaches to fiscal and monetary policy; promoting peace and conflict prevention; and pooling investment in cross border infrastructure for transport, power and communications. In addition to the breadth of integration, the depth of integration is a key factor in determining the outcomes for human development. For example, at greater degrees of integration countries may choose to adopt a common currency or agree to redistributive fiscal mechanisms between geographical regions. They may also agree to common approaches on health and education policy. The definition of human development used in this report is drawn from the Human Development Report produced annually by UNDP. 'Human development' refers to enlarging people's freedoms to live lives they value. For the last 20 years this has been proxied by the Human Development Index (HDI), which covers income and access to health and education services. Although human development has always been understood to include the pillars of empowerment and sustainability, data limitations have precluded their consideration in a global index. In recent years, expanded data sets have allowed work that reflects deprivations in other areas, such as shelter, energy and political voice. The concept of human development naturally entails a strong focus on distribution and equity, between countries and generations, and across gender and age groups.

The decision to regionalize economic activity through an integration process will naturally have significant consequences for economic activity at the community and household levels, particularly for employment. Employment, whether in the formal or informal sectors, is the major determinant of household income and a key driver in strengthening capabilities and accessing opportunities to expand human development. However, economic integration will have impacts on other areas that affect the potential for human development. These linkages are depicted in Figure 6.1.

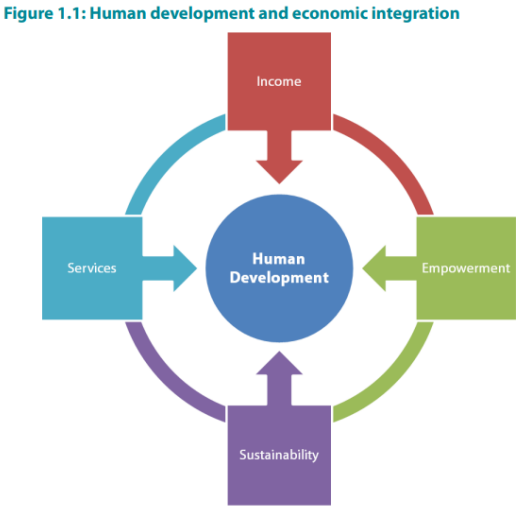

Figure 6.1. Human Development and Economic Integration

1. **Income** (De Lombaerde et al., 2008)

While higher income does not necessarily equate with human development, it remains an important medium through which countries and individuals can expand their capabilities and opportunities. Many countries and aid agencies use income poverty as an important proxy for poverty, whether through national or international poverty lines. Income is driven primarily by employment and the productive capacities of people, moderated by the prices of goods and services that people demand. Regional economic integration will have an impact on employment. Standard economic theory predicts that utilizing existing comparative advantages will lead to a greater efficiency in resource allocation and higher growth. But the impact on aggregate employment is less clear, in both theory and practice. Trade can spur competition and entrepreneurship in traditional and new sectors and hence jobs. On the other hand, investment may occur primarily in capital-intensive sectors linked to natural resource extraction, leading to the phenomenon of jobless growth. Alternatively, and again dependent on the sector, labour may be displaced by the introduction of new technologies. The economic crisis and its aftermath put industrial policy back under the spotlight. The enlarged size of regional economic blocs offers the potential for a different and more successful form of regional industrial policy. Over time this may allow new dynamic comparative advantages to develop, enabling additional employment opportunities to open up in the region. Policies that aim to incentivize growth in particular areas,

including those that are cross-border and bring benefits to multiple countries, may be more successful if supported by regional investments in infrastructure, labour mobility and skills, and common policies and regulation. These can also constitute effective drivers of competitiveness within the region. For human development, the quality of employment is as important as the quantity of employment. The interplay with economic integration, and moreover whether that integration is global or regional, is unclear, however. More competitive market structures may put pressure on the fulfillment of workers' rights, or could — through the introduction of standards across countries — encourage lagging governments to invest more in this area. Finally, the employment effects of economic integration, both positive and negative, will not be uniform across geographical areas, sectors or types of worker. These differentiated employment effects will condition the impact on human development. In the region now covered by the Southern African Customs Union (SACU) for example, men from countries bordering South Africa have typically migrated to take up employment in the mining sector. This has not only left a large number of female-headed households in countries such as Lesotho, but also spread the transmission of HIV from sex workers to miners to home communities.

On the other hand, male labour migration opened up opportunities for women's entrepreneurship in countries of origin due to women's increased representation in the workforce. Youth unemployment is also a pressing global public concern, especially in the context of the recent economic and financial crisis. Youth unemployment is a particular challenge for many African countries because of their stage in the demographic transition. Vulnerable employment is particularly high in sub-Saharan Africa. Whether growth and entrepreneurship resulting from regional integration will have a specific impact on youth unemployment is a key question. Are new businesses, supported by regional policy and infrastructure, likely to recruit young people or indeed be driven by young people? What is the role of public policy in creating incentives that benefit youth employment through integration processes, including in areas such as skills, mobility, and access to finance? Prices are an important transmission channel from employment to human development as they determine the level of goods and services that can be acquired through employment-generated income. These goods and services include those deemed 'essential' by the majority of societies, such as housing, energy, food, education or health services, water and sanitation, but will also often include leisure activities and mechanisms that reduce risk, such as insurance. Lower prices for the goods and services that poor people buy

increase their purchasing power and hence their overall welfare. Similarly, higher prices for the goods and services that poor people produce but do not buy can also increase their income and purchasing power, although this link is not automatic. In a larger system of markets created by integration, the pressure on prices will be downward.

This outcome is not automatic and ultimately depends on market structure and number of competitors/providers. If the market consolidates in the absence of enforced competition policy, monopolistic and monopsonistic behaviour can emerge, leading to higher prices. Beyond absolute income levels to satisfy basic needs, relative income — inequality — is also important. People consider themselves poor in relation to others. Many countries (including industrialized countries) define poverty relatively, not absolutely. Therefore, the impact of regional integration on inequality should be taken into account. Inequality has increased markedly in most countries that have liberalized internally and externally in the last 30 years. Those with assets, particularly financial capital, have gained more from expanded markets and expanded opportunities.

2. **Access to Services** (De Lombaerde et al., 2008)

Economic integration can affect incentives around the provision of and access to services. Key among these services, especially with respect to employment, is education. But the productivity of individual employees and the labour force in aggregate, and hence the ability to take up expanded employment and entrepreneurship opportunities, relates to the availability and prices of potable water, sanitation, and health services. Incentives are altered at many levels: for individuals, national governments, local governments, private sector providers, and other non-state actors. Integration may lead individuals to adapt their skill sets to take advantage of labour market opportunities. These opportunities may arise locally and nationally in growing sectors (through trade or investment), or in neighboring countries, if labour mobility is a part of regional integration. While one would expect greater household investment in education, if growth is in unskilled or semi-skilled sectors (such as agriculture or assembly-type manufacturing) labour market entrants may choose to forego investment in skills upgrading. A key question becomes the role of public policy in supporting incentives for skills upgrading for instance, through public programmes to co-finance household investments in education

1. **Empowerment** (De Lombaerde et al., 2008)

Economic integration and trade has the potential to increase employment and contribute to empowering people. Decent jobs are about more than income: they can provide a sense of personal worth, of being able to provide for oneself and one's family, and being a contributing member of society. Expanded economic opportunities for women can empower women and contribute intrinsically to human development, and have multiplier effects across other aspects of human development, including nutrition and access to health and education. The empowerment of youth through employment is likely to contribute to a decline in negative social behavior such as gang formation, violence and crime.

Empowerment can be decreased if jobs are not fulfilling or if workers' rights are eroded because of asymmetric power relations in integration processes. Increased competition — whether regionally or further afield — can also contribute to increased risk and insecurity for companies and workers. This is compounded by a general lack of welfare systems, including social protection or insurance mechanisms. Public and private mechanisms to mitigate risk are more evident in European countries that have integrated. Empowerment can also be increased through the opportunity to migrate and take up employment opportunities in other countries. Finally, integration with other countries can increase the incentives and pressure for economic and political stability as countries are locked into systems that require or benefit from stability. These systems may be more accountable to citizens, giving greater opportunities for participation, including in shaping the regional integration process itself.

2. **Sustainability** (De Lombaerde et al., 2008)

In Our Common Future (1987 as cited by De Lombaerde et al., 2008), the World Commission on Environment and Development defined 'sustainability' as being able to meet present needs without compromising the ability of future generations to meet their needs. The

definition remains prescient almost 25 years later, with growing concern over climate change, natural resource degradation and biodiversity loss. Indeed, there is a growing recognition that economic activity and advances in human development should take place within the limits imposed by the natural environment. UNDP's 2011 Human Development Report will examine sustainability issues through the lens of inequality.

Existing disparities among and within countries pose a considerable challenge to sustainability, particularly because extreme poverty can reduce the sustainable resource-use options available to poor people. Sustainability is acutely important in increasing energy access for populations currently not served or underserved. Economic integration can create opportunities for utilizing and potentially over-exploiting natural resources. However, it can also contribute to improved stewardship and standards because of pressure to develop standards in a regional context and through regional institutions. Economic growth driven by regional integration can be undermined by the erosion of other capitals — natural, societal — leading to reduced human development. This can happen in the near and long term. It is in the longer term, however, that the human development opportunities for future generations may be undermined, raising the question of intergenerational equity.

Summary

- Regional economic integration is a process in which two or more countries agree to eliminate economic barriers, with the end goal of enhancing productivity and achieving greater economic interdependence. One important characteristic of Asian integration is the rise of regional production networks and growing trade in intermediate goods. As production activities are fragmented into different tasks, the demand for primary and intermediate goods also rises. Asia's deepening integration is also reflected in the growing number of regional trade agreements, the region's increased ability to invest in global manufacturing industries, and increasing links with global capital and financial markets over the years. Despite the growing forces of regionalism in Asia, understanding the full impact of integration appears limited because of the lack of a systematic approach to measure its progress. This is unfortunate because integration has now become an important policy tool in many Asian countries. Thus, monitoring integration is needed not only to understand the integration process but also to influence the development outcomes of integration and to increase the capacity of policy makers to implement better integration policies to sustain the process (De Lombaerde et al. 2008).
- The process of regional economic integration can have significant effects on human development. The term 'integration' signals a process that is considerably broader than simply eliminating barriers to trade in goods and services between countries. Integration can also encompass harmonizing standards and regulatory frameworks; reducing restrictions on financial capital and labour mobility; adopting common approaches to fiscal and monetary policy; promoting peace and conflict prevention; and pooling investment in cross border infrastructure for transport, power and communications. In addition to the breadth of integration, the depth of integration is a key factor in determining the outcomes for human development. natural resources.

- Economic integration will have impacts on other areas that affect the potential for human development.

  Income - Income is driven primarily by employment and the productive capacities of people, moderated by the prices of goods and services that people demand. Regional economic integration will have an impact on employment. Standard economic theory predicts that utilizing existing comparative advantages will lead to a greater efficiency in resource allocation and higher growth.

  Access to services - Economic integration can affect incentives around the provision of and access to services. Key among these services, especially with respect to employment, is education.

  Empowerment - Economic integration and trade has the potential to increase employment and contribute to empowering people. Decent jobs are about more than income: they can provide a sense of personal worth, of being able to provide for oneself and one's family, and being a contributing member of society.

  Sustainability - In Our Common Future (1987), the World Commission on Environment and Development defined 'sustainability' as being able to meet present needs without compromising the ability of future generations to meet their needs. . Sustainability is acutely important in increasing energy access for populations currently not served or underserved. Economic integration can create opportunities for utilizing and potentially over-exploiting natural resources.

Assessment Task 6-1

Direction: Supply the missing words/phrases.

1._____is a process in which two or more countries agree to eliminate economic barriers, with the end goal of enhancing 2. _____ and achieving greater 3. _____. Asia's integration is basically market driven (4._____), multispeed (5. _____) and multitracked (6. _____). One important characteristic of Asian integration is the rise of 7. _____ and 8. _____. It is also perceived as generating significant 9. _____benefits to the 10. _____ through its links to trade, investment, and economic growth.

A. different levels of integration
B. varies across sectors
C. Regional economic integration
D. influenced by policies
E. Productivity
F. domestic economy
G. economic interdependence
H. regional production networks
I. growing trade in intermediate goods
J. macroeconomic

Assessment Task 6-2

1. The process of regional economic integration can have significant effects on human development.
2. 'Human development' refers to enlarging people's freedoms to live lives they value.
3. The decision to regionalize economic activity through an integration process will naturally have no significant consequences for economic activity at the community and household levels, particularly for employment.
4. Employment, whether in the formal or informal sectors, is the major determinant of household income and a key driver in strengthening capabilities and accessing opportunities to expand human development.
5. Economic integration will have no impacts on other areas that affect the potential for human development.
6. While higher income does not necessarily equate with human development, it remains an important medium through which countries and individuals can expand their capabilities and opportunities.
7. For human development, the quality of employment is as important as the quantity of employment.
8. Integration may lead individuals to adapt their skill sets to take advantage of labour market opportunities.
9. Expanded economic opportunities for women can empower women and contribute intrinsically to human development, and have multiplier effects across other aspects of human development, including nutrition and access to health and education.
10. There is a growing recognition that economic activity and advances in human development should take place within the limits imposed by the natural environment.

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MODULE 7
A WORLD OF IDEAS

Introduction

The mass media according to Matos (2012) are seen today as playing a key role in enhancing globalization, facilitating culture exchange and multiple flows of information and image between countries through international news broadcasts, television programming, new technologies, film and music. International flows of information have been largely assisted by the development of global capitalism, new technologies and the increasing commercialization of global television, which has occurred as a consequence of the deregulation policies adopted by various countries in Europe and the US in order to permit the proliferation of cable and satellite channels.

On the other hand, according to Csordas (2009), “the relationship between religion and globalization has rapidly become a central concern for the social sciences and religious studies”.

This module focuses on the important aspects that Global Media Culture and Religion plays on globalization and how it affects our daily lives through the analysis how various media drive various forms of global integration and explaining the dynamics between local and global cultural production.

Learning Outcomes

At the end of this module, students should be able to:

1. Analyze how various media drive various forms of global integration
2. Explain the dynamic between local and global cultural production

Lesson 1. Global Media Cultures

What is **media**? The term media comes from the word medium which is defined as channel, means, or method. Media is a generic term for all human-invented technology that extends the range, speed, or channels of communication. Media can also be tied to what we call mass media, or the media that reach large audiences (Shanida, 2015)

Figure 7.1. The Three Types of Media (2014)

Source: https://i2.wp.com/drewmckissick.com/wp-content/uploads/2014/09/media-types-1.jpg

The different forms of media are:

1.*Print Media* –media consisting of paper and ink, reproduced in a printing process that is traditionally mechanical. Examples of print media are: newspaper, books, magazines, comics, brochures.

2.*Broadcast Media* –media such as radio and television that reach target audiences using airwaves as the transmission medium. Examples of broadcast media are: television, radio, satellites, mobile phones, movies/films.

3.*Digital Media* –also known as new media, consisting of contents that are organized and distributed on digital platforms. Examples of digital media are internet, social media, computers.

Media and other information providers play a central role in information and communication processes. They are one way of communicating information, although their role is much broader than that. Media play several roles. They:

- act as channels of information and knowledge through which citizens communicate with each other and make informed decisions;
- facilitate informed debates between diverse social actors;
- provide us with much of what we learn about the world beyond our immediate experience;
- are means by which a society learns about itself and builds a sense of community;
- function as a watchdog of government in all its forms, promoting transparency in public life and public scrutiny of those with power through exposing corruption, maladministration and corporate wrong-doing;

- are essential facilitators of democratic processes and one of the guarantors of free and fair elections;
- are a vehicle for cultural expression and cultural cohesion within and between nations; and
- function as an advocate and social actor in its own right while respecting pluralistic values.

By definition, **Global Media** as explained by Shanida (2015) is “the mass communication on a global level, allowing people across the world to share and access the same information.” It is indeed that technologies made people’s lives easier all over the globe. Today people all over the world have easy access to communicate with each other and to be aware of the news all over the world. There are many advantages in global media. Now, people have easier access of

television, radio, internet and in fact, they have access of others countries' satellite TV channels. With those all easy access in many regions western televisions shows became more popular. Of course, global media made it easier for people to learn about other culture via TV shows.

The role of the mass media in the globalization of culture is a contested issue in international communication theory and research. Early theories of media influence, commonly referred to as "**magic bullet**" or "**hypodermic needle**" theories, believed that the mass media had powerful effects over audiences. Since then, the debate about media influence has undergone an ebb and flow that has prevented any resolution or agreement among researchers as to the level, scope, and implications of media influence.

One perspective on the globalization of culture, somewhat reminiscent of cultural imperialism in terms of the nature of the effect of media on culture, but somewhat different in its conceptualization of the issue, is the view that the media contribute to the homogenization of cultural differences across the planet. This view dominates conventional wisdom perspectives on cultural globalization conjuring up images of Planet Hollywood and the MTV generation.

Another perspective on globalization is **cultural hybridity or hybridization**. This view privileges an understanding of the interface of globalization and localization as a dynamic process and hybrid product of mixed traditions and cultural forms. As such, this perspective does not give prominence to globalization as a homogenizing force, nor does it believe in localization as a resistive process opposed to globalization. Rather, hybridization advocates an emphasis on processes of mediation that it views as central to cultural globalization. The concept of hybridization is the product of interdisciplinary work mostly based in intellectual projects such as postcolonialism, cultural studies, and performance studies. Hybridization has been used in communication and media studies and appears to be a productive theoretical orientation as researchers in international media studies attempt to grasp the complex subtleties of the globalization of culture. (Encyclopedia.com. 2021).

Much globalized media content comes from the West, particularly from the United States. Driven by advertising, U.S. culture and media have a strong consumerist bent (meaning that the ever-increasing consumption of goods is encouraged as an economic virtue), thereby possibly causing foreign cultures to increasingly develop consumerist ideals. Therefore, the globalization

of media could not only provide content to a foreign country, but may also create demand for U.S. products. Some believe that this will "contribute to a one-way transmission of ideas and values that result in the displacement of indigenous cultures (Santos, 2001)."

One prime example of this phenomenon of global culture and marketing is James Cameron's 1997 film Titanic. One of the most expensive movies ever produced up to that point, with an official budget of around $200 million, Titanic was not anticipated to perform particularly well at the U.S. box office. Rather, predictions of foreign box-office receipts allowed the movie to be made. Of the total box-office receipts of Titanic, only about one-third came from the domestic market. Although Titanic became the highest-grossing film up to that point, it grossed just $140 million more domestically than Star Wars did 20 years earlier (Box Office Mojo). The difference was in the foreign market. While Star Wars made about the same amount—$300 million—in both the domestic and foreign markets, Titanic grossed $1.2 billion in foreign box-office receipts. In all, the movie came close to hitting the $2 billion mark, and now sits in the No. 2 position behind Cameron's 2009 blockbuster, Avatar. (Box Office Mojo, n.d)

The Role of Social Media in the Contemporary World

Zuckerberg (2017) in his article explains that there are a few reasons for the increase in issues in cultural norms that are shifting, cultures are different around the world, and people are sensitive to different things.

Figure 7-2. Mark Zuckerberg (2017)

Source: https://fortune.com/2017/02/17/mark-zuckerberg-manifesto-facebook/

First, our community is evolving from its origin connecting us with family and friends to now becoming a source of news and public discourse as well. With this cultural shift, our Community Standards must adapt to permit more newsworthy and historical content, even if some is objectionable. For example, an extremely violent video of someone dying would have been marked as disturbing and taken down. However, now that we use Live to capture the news and we post videos to protest violence, our standards must adapt. Similarly, a photo depicting any child nudity would have always been taken down — and for good reason — but we've now adapted our standards to allow historically important content like the Terror of War photo. These issues reflect a need to update our standards to meet evolving expectations from our community.

Second, our community spans many countries and cultures, and the norms are different in each region. It's not surprising that Europeans more frequently find fault with taking down images depicting nudity, since some European cultures are more accepting of nudity than, for

example, many communities in the Middle East or Asia. With a community of almost two billion people, it is less feasible to have a single set of standards to govern the entire community so we need to evolve towards a system of more local governance.

Third, even within a given culture, we have different opinions on what we want to see and what is objectionable. I may be okay with more politically charged speech but not want to see anything sexually suggestive, while you may be okay with nudity but not want to see offensive speech. Similarly, you may want to share a violent video in a protest without worrying that you're going to bother friends who don't want to see it. And just as it's a bad experience to see objectionable content, it's also a terrible experience to be told we can't share something we feel is important. This suggests we need to evolve towards a system of personal control over our experience.

Fourth, we're operating at such a large scale that even a small percent of errors causes a large number of bad experiences. We review over one hundred million pieces of content every month, and even if our reviewers get 99% of the calls right, that's still millions of errors over time. Any system will always have some mistakes, but I believe we can do better than we are today. (Global Policy Journal. 2021).

Matos (2012) also argues that the cultural imperialism theories of the 1960's and 1970's have thus given way to the "cultural globalization" perspectives which have predominated media scholarship in the 90's, indicating for some a shift away from a more neo-Marxist rigid one-way model of cultural domination towards a more sophisticated analysis and appreciation of "multidirectional flows" across countries, acknowledging the emergence of regional markets, the resistance of media audiences to American culture and the diversity in the 6 forms of engagement with media texts. Various theorists have updated the cultural imperialism theories nonetheless in the context of the persistence of inequalities of power and wealth between countries, the unevenness of flows and increasing media concentration and commercialization, arguing for its relevance still in the context of the expanding power of transnational media corporations situated in the rich West.

Many of the countries are known for signature genres or types of production, each inviting close examination. So we might think of Korean dramas or K-Pop with Korea; anime, gaming, and classic film with Japan; telenovelas and melodrama with Mexico and Nigeria; period dramas

and witty comedies with England; cerebral, highly artistic film with France; high-paced action film with Hong Kong; and big budget, lavish musicals with India. Each of these countries produces more than just their signature products (just as the US produces more than glossy pop musicians, sitcoms, and blockbuster films), which can be overshadowed by their global successes. But everything we might think we know about US media can be challenged by the different realities in each country. (Lopez & Gray, 2021).

Marwan (2002) also adds that the received view about the globalization of culture is one where the entire world has been molded in the image of Western, mainly American, culture. In popular and professional discourses alike, the popularity of Big Macs, Baywatch, and MTV are touted as unmistakable signs of the fulfillment of Marshall McLuhan's prophecy of the Global Village. The globalization of culture is often chiefly imputed to international mass media. After all, contemporary media technologies such as satellite television and the Internet have created a steady flow of transnational images that connect audiences worldwide. Without global media, according to the conventional wisdom, how would teenagers in India, Turkey, and Argentina embrace a Western lifestyle of Nike shoes, Coca-Cola, and rock music? Hence, the strong influence of the mass media on the globalization of culture.

Herman and McChesney (2004) argue that the global media market is still dominated by US interests and by the US domestic market. The whole global media system has come to be dominated by 9 or 10 companies: Time Warner, Disney, Bertelsman, Viacom, TeleCommunications INC, News Corporation, Sony, Seagram, General Electric and Philips. They develop in their three tier model of global media Schiller's revised understanding of cultural imperialism as being "transnational cultural domination", indicating the shift away from American hegemony towards transnational capitalism and presenting a picture of globalization as a process driven "from above" by giant media corporations supported by deregulation policies of various states. They advocate wider media democratization "from below" and media reform. According to the authors, the global media market is characterised by oligopolistic market competition and is linked to the rise of the global capitalist economic system, having been encouraged by new digital technologies and by the institutions of global capitalism, like the World Bank.

Computerized technology, satellite TV and the Internet have also contributed to the reduction of the cost of communications, stimulating home-made productions and gradually

widening the access of many to these technologies. In his discussion of the impact of technologies on everyday life, Castells (2000), considered one of the main philosophers of cyberspace, has shown how the Internet has revolutionized international information exchange due to its ability in moving data across borders. He has also pointed out how the Internet has become well suited for the expanding individualism of contemporary reality, with consumers using the web to create their own content and distribute it to global audiences. The Internet is also seen as strengthening the cultural identities of diasporic peoples, as well as assisting in social networking and in forging ties with like-minded individuals, social groups and various communities across the globe.

Internationalization and Globalization of Media

Internationalization of media according to Wang (2008) can influence national cultures in different ways. However, the cultural hegemony of media exporters is unlikely in and of itself to result in cultural domination. Media may be a necessary, but are unlikely to be a sufficient, condition for cultural resistance or submission. International media's effect on local culture should always be examined within the context of different economic, technological and cultural situations. Economic and technological internationalization of media not only recharges the existing media strengths, but also allows new media outlets to emerge and grow. In the case of India, the national and local media players grow increasingly stronger; due to cultural factors, they have an edge over foreign competitors. The national and regional media groups such as Zee TV develop quickly and play an important role in the development and perpetuation of Indian cultural identity. Whether the internationalization of media has the potential to undermine national culture depends on how strong a particular national culture is. Circumstances exist, of course, under which national culture is damaged by aggressively marketed foreign media imports. However, the theory that local cultures will be drowned out and completely disappear under a tide of Western/American media at present does not appear to hold, at least not in the case of India. This is partly because of the strong cultural identity of groups in India. The cultural preferences of Indian viewers are so strong that foreign imports are put at a clear competitive disadvantage relative to the regional and national media produced. In fact, the strong national culture forces more savvy international media conglomerates to tailor their output so as to fit into the local cultural setting.

Media globalization has been made possible by the ongoing changes and developments in information and communications technology. Cable, ISDN, digitalization, direct broadcast satellites as well as the Internet have created a situation where vast amounts of information can be transferred around the globe in a matter of seconds. The merging of the personal computer and the television set in tandem with the rolling out of digitalized television and radio open up even wider possibilities for those who can afford new media technologies. Wireless technology such as the WAP mobile phone allows Internet access. Companies such as Nokia using the Multimedia Messaging System have recently developed ways to deliver text, audio clips and digital pictures via mobile phone handsets.

According to Thompson (1995), we can say that media globalization is characterized by a number of distinct features. These are:

1. The emergence of and continued dominance of the global media industry by a small number of transnational media conglomerates.
2. The use by these media conglomerates of new information and communications technologies.
3. The increasingly deregulated environment in which these media organizations operate.
4. The globalization of media content has resulted in a greater amount of homogenization and standardization in certain media products produced and distributed by the global media industries.
5. The uneven flow of information and communication products within the global system and the different levels of access that global citizens have to global networks of communication.
6. Media globalization is inextricably linked with the promotion of the ideology of consumerism and is therefore bound up with the capitalist project.

Lesson 2. The Globalization of Religion

As goods and finance crisscross across the globe, globalization shifts the cultural makeup of the globe and creates a homogenized "global culture." Although not a new phenomenon, the process of globalization has truly made the world a smaller place in which political, social, and economic events elsewhere affect individuals anywhere. As a result, individuals "search for constant time and space-bounded identities" in a world ever changing by the day. One such identity is religion.

Generally, religion is a "system of beliefs and practices." More specifically, the word comes from the Latin "**religare**" which means "to bind together again that which was once bound but has since been torn apart or broken." Indeed, with the globalization of economics and politics, individuals feel insecure "as the life they once led is being contested and changed at the same time. Hence, in order for a person to maintain a sense of psychological well-being and avoid existential anxiety, individuals turn to scripture stories and teachings that provide a vision about how they can be bound to a "meaningful world," a world that is quickly changing day-by-day. (Golebiewski, 2014)

What role does religion play in a globalized society? Religion and Globalization explores the interaction between religion and worldwide social and cultural change. There are some of the key issues confronting religion today, including religion as culture, pure and applied religion, privatized and publicly influential religion, and liberal versus conservative religion. Religion and Globalization is a vital resource for understanding the place of religion in global culture, and the relation between religion and globalization. (Roberts, 2021)

Thomas (1999) states that in a time in which globalization has yet to fully complete its process, religions must use the communication easily available through advanced technology to focus more on the humane and pluralistic forms of their teachings—values such as human dignity and human freedom—as means to manage religious diversity and avoid violence. In other words, religious should be open to other traditions and what they can teach. In fact, though having "fixed texts," the major world religions do not have fixed beliefs, only fixed interpretations of those beliefs, meaning their beliefs can be rediscovered, reinvented, and reconceptualized.

Nobutaka (2021) argues that when this vision of globalization is applied to religion, we can suggest that we will see steady change from the conventional form of religion linked intimately to the histories and cultures of respective nations and ethnic groups. Instead, the activities of individual religious groups will take on the increasing characteristic of free competition on a global scale. Further, there is also the possibility of witnessing great transformations in the traditional structure of the historical religions.

The phenomenon of a religion's expanding without ties to a specific nation, society, or ethnic group is not, in itself, new. Religion is fundamentally is endowed with just such powers of survival. But what is emphasize here is the fact that the concept of globalization concerns the situation after the branches and sects of so-called "world religions" --- namely, Christianity, Islam, and Buddhism --- have established their religio-cultural spheres throughout the world. Everywhere in the world one can observe the deep connection between religion and the state or ethnic group, and various religious structures --- together with the characteristics originally held by the religion or sect --- have often undergone great transformations in the process of developing within specific nations or ethnic groups. For example, the same Mahayana Buddhism has developed substantially different social functions in the neighboring countries of Korea and Japan. In this way, each region of the world can be defined by a distribution map of its main religious groups, while at the same time, the religion within each nation and ethnic group has come to possess its own unique characteristics.

What will globalization mean for the transformation of religious doctrines, rituals and practices? The most likely aspect of change is a combination of various elements from different streams, a phenomenon which is describe as "**neo-syncretism**." Neo-syncretism is at base a variety of syncretism, though I offer the "neo" in respect of its unique features as part of the information age.

The phenomenon of **syncretism** is entirely natural within societies where multiple religious traditions coexist. The syncretistic relationship existing between Shinto and Buddhism is well known in Japan, while syncretism existed between Taoism, Confucianism and Buddhism in China, and between Buddhism and Hinduism in wide areas of South and Southeast Asian countries. What is the difference between these classical forms of syncretism and "neo-syncretism"? The most important difference I wish to suggest is the fact that in neo-syncretism,

doctrines and rituals are amalgamated intentionally and aggressively, merely on the basis of available information, and without the necessity of any actual contact between the religious groups involved.

Religions in a Globalizing World

Figure 7.3. Religion and Globalization (n.d)

Source: http://www.summerschooles.uni.lodz.pl/wgrane_pliki/the-influence-of-globalisation-on-religious-issues.pdf

From its inception, **Christianity** has been an aggressively proselytizing religion with a globalizing agenda. Indeed, the Roman Catholic Church was arguably the first global institution, having spread rapidly throughout the European colonial world and beyond. Today, perhaps the fastest-growing religion is evangelical Christianity. Stressing the individual's personal experience of divinity (as opposed to priestly intercession), evangelicalism has gained wide appeal in regions such as Latin America and sub-Saharan Africa, presenting serious challenges to established Catholic churches. Following the collapse of Soviet power in 1991, the Russian Orthodox church began the process of rebuilding after more than seven decades of repression. At the same time, evangelical missionaries from the United States and Europe shifted much of their attention from Latin America and Africa to Russia, alarming Russian Orthodox leaders. By 1997, under pressure from Orthodox clergy, the Russian government promoted legislation to restrict the activities of religious organizations that had operated in Russia for less than 15 years, effectively banning Western evangelical missionaries. The debate over Russian religious unity continues, however, and, if China is any guide, such legislation could have little long-term effect.

Meanwhile, Asia's "**Confucian**" societies face a concurrent revolution in family values: the conjugal family (centring on the emotional bond between wife and husband) is rapidly replacing the patriarchal joint family (focused on support of aged parents and grandparents). This

transformation is occurring even in remote, rural regions of northwest China where married couples now expect to reside in their own home ("neolocal" residence) as opposed to the house or compound of the groom's parents ("patrilocal" residence). The children produced by these conjugal units are very different from their older kin who were reared in joint families: today's offspring are likely to be pampered only children known as "Little Emperors" or "Little Empresses." Contemporary East Asian families are characterized by an ideology of consumerism that is diametrically opposed to the neo-authoritarian Confucian rhetoric promoted by political leaders such as Singapore's Lee Kuan Yew and Hong Kong's Tung Chee-hwa at the turn of the 21st century. (Britannica, 2021)

According to Miasami (2003) the relationship between **Islam** and globalization has been open to much interpretation and acrimonious debate. At the crux of the current debate is the idea that Islam is somehow opposed to the process of globalization. He argues that Islam is not against the process of globalization per se, but rather that the tension is due to the process of Westernization. Characteristically, globalization is directly associated with change, or transformation, modernity, and an increasingly interdependent relationship between different regions of the world. "Globalization is an aspect of human life that has always been there since the beginning of humanity. It corresponds with the natural human instinct and man's tendency towards being a 'social animal.' It is the tendency with which God has created man to live on exchanging his sources and experiences with others around him, in order to achieve and realize the best chances of life."

Islamic Globalization is a combination of religious, economic, political, and diplomatic advances that are transforming the Muslim world. Its building blocks are the hajj and religious travel, capitalism and Islamic finance, democracy and Islamic Modernism, as well as new international regimes tailored to the varied needs and tastes of Muslims in diverse cultures. Islamic Globalization allows modern Muslims to join the mainstream of international life and to reform it at the same time.

Judaism is perhaps the most global of religious traditions, having existed in myriad diaspora communities throughout the Middle East, Europe, and eventually the Americas and elsewhere. There are currently some fourteen million Jews around the world: the largest number, almost six million, are in North America; about four and a half million live in Israel; three million in

Europe; a half million in Latin America; and the remainder in Asia, Australia, Africa, and elsewhere in the Middle East. A broad view of Jewish life throughout the globe was implicit in the new "science of Judaism" formulated early in the nineteenth century, but the systematic and mature application of sociological thought to the historical study of Judaism around the world emerged only slowly. (Goldberg, 2006).

Jews, played an outsized role in the creation of systems that gave rise to modern corporate capitalism, which is the economic force behind contemporary globalization–the unprecedented flow of capital and commerce across international borders, and the accompanying monoculture that espouses personal fulfillment and material advancement as the highest values. A World Jewish Congress paper, published in 2001, notes that Jews "have always supported globalization Jewish existence in the Diaspora has been based for hundreds of years on globalization, and in many periods it has been the Jews who supported and spread the concept. In reliance on their ability to build international ties connecting different Diaspora communities, the Jews have always promoted globalization, and have served as its agents." (Rifkin, 2021)

Three Perspectives on Religion in the Globalization Process

According to Kurth (1999) there are three paradigms or perspectives from which one may view the role of religion in the globalization process: (1) the modernist, (2) the post-modernist, and (3) the pre- modernist.

The Modernist Perspective. The modernist perspective will seem the most familiar. It is the perspective of most intellectuals and academics.

The modernist perspective has had a particular and peculiar view of secularization. Beginning with the Enlightenment, modernists have entertained the prospect that all secularizations would eventually look alike; the different religions would all end up as the same secular and "rational" philosophy. This prospect seemed natural enough during the eighteenth and nineteenth centuries, when the only prominent secularization was that of Christianity. But even at that time, it should have been clear that secularized Protestantism was different from secularized Catholicism, and that there were even differences among the secularized Protestant denominations themselves.

In the simplest version of the modernist view, Enlightenment and secularization progressively spreads from the educated elite to other people as well, from the center of society to the periphery. If any religious communities should remain, they are composed of marginal people — marginal geographically, economically, or ethnically. Religious communities are almost like social fossils.

The Post-Modernist Perspective. The post-Enlightenment, post-modernist perspective joins with the Enlightenment, modernist one in rejecting traditional, pre-modern religions. But this perspective also rejects the Enlightenment, modernist values of rationalism, empiricism, and science, along with the Enlightenment, modernist structures of capitalism, bureaucracy, and even liberalism. The core value of post-modernism is expressive individualism.

The post-modernist perspective can include "spiritual experiences," but only those without religious (in the original sense of "binding") constraints. The New Age movement can be interpreted as the ideal-typical post-modernist spiritual expression. Post-modernists are also drawn to superficial, Americanized versions of certain Eastern religions, especially "lite" Buddhism and Hinduism. They are also drawn to an Americanized version of nature worship, a sort of neo-paganism.

The Pre-Modernist Perspective. There is an alternative perspective, one which is post-modern in its occurrence but which is pre-modern in its sensibility. It is best represented and articulated by the Roman Catholic Church, especially by Pope John Paul II. The Pope's understanding obviously has drawn from his experiences with Poland, but it encompasses events in other countries as well.

From this pre-modernist perspective, many of the great modern, secular ideologies had manifestly failed by the 1970s-1980s. This was true of Soviet communism, Arab nationalism and socialism, and the nationalism and modernization project of the Shah's Iran. All of these were ideologies, even idolatries, of the state.

In conclusion, Dawson (2014) states that in view of the preceding treatment of globalizing modernity, academic appreciation of the relationship between religion and globalization necessarily involves elements of continuity and discontinuity. Because the dynamics of globalization are embroiled with the progressive spread of globalizing modernity, macro-structural parallels, mid-range institutional continuities and micro-social equivalences are in evidence between otherwise disparate geographical and socio-cultural contexts. The proper analytical grasp of these parallels, continuities and equivalences is, however, conditional upon a contextual sensitivity which remains alive to empirical and theoretical discontinuities in view of local conditions on the ground. Irrespective of the kind or location of the dynamics at play, globalizing modernity does not unfold in a vacuum, just as its constitutive processes do not take shape independently of a locality's established patterns of political-economic and socio-cultural reproduction. Inherited structures and traditional ways of life supply a vibrant and, at times, resistant set of ingredients which impact upon the local character ultimately assumed by the processes and dynamics constitutive of globalizing modernity. Given the inherent resistance or localizing character of empirical conditions on the ground, aforementioned articulations of regional difference play an important role in avoiding the uncritical transposition of models and theories from one context to another. Ultimately, however, and if they are to be of any analytical use at all, assertions of regional difference must also articulate the kinds and extent of difference in evidence, the empirical grounds on which this difference rests, along with its theoretical significance in respect of both the locale in question and its overarching global context. When

articulated in a manner like this, such displays of hermeneutical suspicion play a vital role in preserving a theoretical appreciation of globalizing modernity's multifaceted character.

Summary

- The term media comes from the word medium which is defined as channel, means, or method. Media is a generic term for all human-invented technology that extends the range, speed, or channels of communication. Media can also be tied to what we call mass media, or the media that reach large audiences.
- Global Media is “the mass communication on a global level, allowing people across the world to share and access the same information.” It is indeed that technologies made people’s lives easier all over the globe.
- Computerized technology, satellite TV and the Internet have also contributed to the reduction of the cost of communications, stimulating home-made productions and gradually widening the access of many to these technologies.
- Religion is a “system of beliefs and practices.” More specifically, the word comes from the Latin “**religare**” which means “to bind together again that which was once bound but has since been torn apart or broken.” Indeed, with the globalization of economics and politics, individuals feel insecure “as the life they once led is being contested and changed at the same time.
- The phenomenon of a religion's expanding without ties to a specific nation, society, or ethnic group is not, in itself, new. Religion is fundamentally is endowed with just such powers of survival. But what is emphasize here is the fact that the concept of globalization concerns the situation after the branches and sects of so-called "world religions" --- namely, Christianity, Islam, and Buddhism --- have established their religio-cultural spheres throughout the world.
- There are three paradigms or perspectives from which one may view the role of religion in the globalization process: (1) the modernist, (2) the post-modernist, and (3) the pre- modernist.

Assessment Task 7-1

TRUE OR FALSE. Write TRUE if the statement is true and write FALSE if the statement is false. (10 Points)

1. Print Media are consisting of paper and ink, reproduced in a printing process that is traditionally mechanical.
2. Media and other information providers play a central role in information and communication processes.
3. Early theories of media influence, commonly referred to as "magic needle " or "hypodermic bullet " theories, believed that the mass media had powerful effects over audiences.
4. Hybridization is a view privileges of an understanding of the interface of globalization and localization as a dynamic process and hybrid product of mixed traditions and cultural forms.
5. Media globalization has been made possible by the ongoing changes and developments in information and communications technology.
6. As goods and finance crisscross across the globe, globalization shifts the cultural makeup of the globe and creates a homogenized “global culture.”
7. Religion and Globalization explores the interaction between religion and worldwide social and cultural change.
8. Religion is fundamentally is endowed with just such powers of survival.
9. The modernist perspective has had a particular and peculiar view of secularization.
10. The New Age movement can be interpreted as the ideal-typical post-modernist spiritual expression.

Assessment Task 7-2

Write an essay discussing the effects of globalization in religion. Cite personal experiences as to how modernization affected your belief and the traditions in your locality. (10 points)

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